

25. Immigration and gentrification

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25.1 INTRODUCTION

Immigration involves the 'deliberate crossing of nation-state borders', moving into a particular country rather than out, sometimes permanently but increasingly with (transnational) ties to the home country (Waters, 2009: 297; Boyle, 2009). This differs from migrants, who could be internal to the nation-state, region or even city, connecting to ideas of residential mobility. International immigration is presently one of the main generators of demographic change in cities, while gentrification is one of the main pathways of class-based restructuring and re-composition of urban space – yet the two have rarely been placed systematically alongside each other (but for localized examples see Betancur, 2002; Murdie and Teixeira, 2011; Stabrowski, 2014). In fact, 'immigration' does not even feature in the much-cited *Gentrification* compendium (Lees et al, 2008), despite Lees (2000) listing it as a future research issue, although it is implicit in certain case studies. But while immigration has been largely ignored, this is not the case with the sometimes-overlapping notion of 'race', defined as 'a social construction but, as such, has material consequences that can be matters of life and death' (Winders, 2009: 53). The intersections of 'race' and class-inflected gentrification are particularly prominent in the United States, such that Freeman (2006: 3) noted the 'Black inner city of America is surely a singular and unique phenomenon that demands its own perspective when considering gentrification' (see also Lees, 2016). The relationship between 'race' and gentrification has been well-covered, with a plethora of studies on the spectre of incoming White gentrifiers (and sometimes incumbent Black ones) displacing poorer residents in formerly disinvested African-American neighborhoods – such as Venice in Los Angeles (Deener, 2012), Capitol Hill in Washington DC (Hopkinson, 2012), Harlem in New York City (Freeman, 2006) and Bywater in New Orleans (Peck, 2006).

This gentrification-induced reversal of White flight from American cities to the suburbs, however, has likely drawn precious attention away from the relationship between gentrification and immigrants. Perhaps another reason why little has been written systematically on this relationship is the assumption that gentrification and immigration effectively repel each other in urban space – concentrated immigration forecloses gentrification by vexing higher-income groups, while increased gentrification pushes out immigrant enclaves (Ley, 2010; Vicino et al, 2011; Walks and Maaranen, 2008). But surely there is more empirical complexity than this, such that the relationship ought to be unpacked both conceptually but also geographically. More to the point, while 'race' is compelling precisely because of its stereotypically 'black and white' nature between downtrodden resident and incoming gentrifier, the relationship between immigrant and gentrifier is likely to be more multifaceted – do they meet, do they repel, do they overlap, do they work as one, do they polarize?

In this chapter, I propose a fivefold typology of immigrant-gentrification relationships, drawing on globe-spanning material that suggests various permutations: (1) immigrants

as barriers to gentrification; (2) immigrants living side-by-side with gentrification, essentially a bubble model; (3) immigrants displaced by gentrification; (4) immigrants avoid gentrified areas a priori; and (5) immigrants are themselves gentrifiers, enclave-style. Throughout the description of the typology, I am conscious of Clerval's (2013) argument that immigrants and gentrifiers are not equal in their social and economic standing. To her, gentrifiers are doubly dominant in that they belong to the class and race in power, enabling them to effectively make their mark upon the neighbourhood and appropriate its symbols, rather than assimilating into local realities and long-held legacies as immigrants are expected to. Yet while many immigrants are clearly racialized and thus held to be subordinate, others are considered more 'ethnic', in terms of having shared culture and heritage, and without necessarily holding a lower racial category from the non-immigrant, so-called 'native' population and gentrifiers (Winders, 2009). This opens up the consideration that some immigrants may gentrify their own enclaves, and so I entertain in the last category the potential that the two groups can actually be the same. Given that the last category has hence largely been ignored, I will provide a case study of Koreatown (Los Angeles), using primary and secondary data to delve further into the dynamics of gentrification undertaken by first- and second-generation Korean immigrants in their original 'hub neighbourhood' (original point of entry, but also considered the cultural heart of the immigrant community) west of Downtown Los Angeles.

By taking immigrants seriously in their relationship to gentrification, this chapter is inspired by recent tendencies in gentrification theory that advance a more theoretically and empirically open approach, while building on the still-useful insights of three decades of the traditional political economy perspective. More specifically, gentrification has long been wedded to a narrow set of Western cities and plagued by insular (and polarizing) debates (e.g. Slater, 2006; Davidson, 2007; Lees et al, 2008; Wyly, 2015), especially in terms of causation but also with respect to consequences. Of late, there has been a concerted effort to link gentrification with more cosmopolitan and comparative stances, effectively connecting gentrification theory with more open-ended constructs (including planetary urbanization, comparative methods) and thereby decolonizing its once parochial touchstones (Wyly, 2015; Lees et al, 2015, 2016; Shin et al, 2016). This allows us to fully appreciate Atkinson and Bridge's (2005: 15) insight that 'gentrification provides a vital debate around which the analysis of globalization, international migration, and neighbourhood change are increasingly attached'. This more globalized stance (see also Davidson, 2007) further links to ideas of planetary gentrification, whose fundamental characteristics and 'global regularities' (Lees et al, 2015: 6) of class polarization, re-investment and displacement profuse across the Global North and the Global South, acting as a privileged gateway to understanding urban inequality writ large. In other words, seeing 'gentrification as a dimension of planetary urbanization' as much as 'gentrification in cities' (Wyly, 2015: 2515). If we are serious about committing to a globalized, cosmopolitan and comparative approach to gentrification, then surely one way forward is to consider its relationship with another potentially globe-spanning agent – the immigrant – which moves us beyond merely considering gentrification as a globally mobile policy strategy, anchored in global cities and articulated by cosmopolitan subjects (Davidson, 2007) to considering the extralocal and the 'elsewhere' beyond the 'usual suspects' (e.g. London, New York City, San Francisco, Sydney).

25.2 TYPOLOGY

In this age of rapid conceptual churn and flux within urban studies (DeVerteuil, 2016), it might seem quaint to use a typological approach to understand the idiosyncrasies of the immigrant-gentrification relationship. However, my proposed typology will prove useful in building up a 'geography of gentrification' (Lees, 2000), in which immigrant settlement patterns play an equally important role in the processes of gentrification, thereby capturing tensions that exist between the two dynamics of contemporary urban change. Furthermore, it is a geography focused not just on the top-tier global cities but also on less dynamic places where gentrification and immigration are only beginning to rub shoulders (Hwang, 2015).

Snow and Anderson (1993: 36) defined typologies as '... the process by which members of some empirical domain are categorized and ordered in terms of their similarities and differences ... The resulting classificatory scheme directs the observer's attention to certain aspects of the phenomenon under study'. I will focus on just a few critical dimensions that most encapsulate the relationship between gentrification and immigration at the neighbourhood scale, set within the larger metropolitan context: the degree and nature of spatial interactions between gentrification and immigration; the intra-urban dynamics that help structure those interactions; and the level of gentrification at the metropolitan scale. More specifically, while I focus on the spatial interactions at the neighbourhood scale, these cannot be divorced from (and are in fact in relation with) larger metropolitan processes, including the timing and extent of the overall gentrification and immigration patterns (and policies), the inertia and legacy of the built environment, and metropolitan dynamics in terms of centripetal or centrifugal tendencies of (re)investment.

My typology overlaps with (1) a locally specific yet globally crosscutting view of gentrification and immigration (Krijnen and Beukelaer, 2015), and (2) a comparative urbanism approach, open to different forms of gentrification based on very different urban cultures and systems (Ley and Teo, 2014). Most but certainly not all of the examples in Table 25.1 come from the Global North, which is inevitable given the greater focus on these cities as crucibles of both gentrification and international immigration (Ley, 2010). However, the majority of immigrants come from the Global South, which inherently mixes the two urban worlds up, and that some Global South cities do more than just produce migrants to the North – they also attract Global South migrants, to places such as Dubai, Johannesburg and Singapore (see also Benton-Short et al, 2005).

The proposed five categories of gentrification-immigration relationships build on previously established stage models in gentrification that incorporate both temporal and spatial sequences. Early models, such as that of Clay (1979), represented gentrification in an 'orderly temporal, sequential progress' (Lees et al, 2008: 34) from pioneer to established, while more recent models are less teleological and can follow myriad sequences, including gentrification stalling or even reversing itself, but increasingly underlining the squarely state-sponsored nature of gentrification (Lees et al, 2016). It is important to note that categories 2 through 4 are part of a sequence, one in which gentrification overflows onto immigrant settlements and eventually, given enough time, displaces them entirely from the inner city, to the point where immigrants will avoid these inner-city areas *a priori*. Yet there is nothing inevitable about this sequence, as neighbourhood gentrification can be postponed in any of these categories. However, categories 1 and 5 are outliers – the first

Table 25.1 *Typology of the immigrant-gentrification relationship*

RELATIONSHIP	METROPOLITAN CONTEXT: INTRA- URBAN DYNAMICS	METROPOLITAN CONTEXT: OVERALL LEVEL OF GENTRIFICATION	NEIGHBOURHOOD SPATIAL INTERACTIONS	NEIGHBOURHOOD EXAMPLES
CATEGORY 1: IMMIGRANTS AS BARRIER TO GENTRIFICATION	heavily immigrant	weak	no interactions	Paris – Goutte d'Or; Buenos Aires – Once; Jo'burg – Hillbrow; Singapore – Little India
CATEGORY 2: IMMIGRANTS LIVE SIDE BY SIDE WITH GENTRIFICATION	gentrifying, strong center	gentrifying	The two groups live in geographical proximity yet socially tectonic (Butler, 2003)	London – Stoke Newington; Paris – 10th arrondissement
CATEGORY 3: IMMIGRANTS DISPLACED BY GENTRIFICATION	gentrifying, strong center	gentrifying	dwindling	New York – Chinatown; Panama City – Casco Viejo
CATEGORY 4: IMMIGRANTS AVOID GENTRIFIED AREAS <i>A PRIORI</i>	gentrified, strong center	very strong and established	no interactions	Toronto suburbs; New York City beyond Manhattan; Sydney suburbs; Vancouver suburbs
CATEGORY 5: IMMIGRANTS AS GENTRIFIERS	heavily immigrant, polycentric or weak center	weak	collapsed	Miami – Little Havana; Los Angeles – Koreatown

category speaks to a heavily immigrant inner city where barriers are many to potential gentrification, while the fifth category sees immigrants as the gentrifiers, working to upgrade their own enclaves. This model should not, however, be confused with other forms of upgrading via overseas investors, who do not follow the enclave model and invest in established areas of wealth, such as Russians in London.

25.2.1 Category 1: Immigrants as Barrier to Gentrification

In this first category, immigrants are a solid barrier to gentrification. I can begin to consider this 'thwarted gentrification' in the heavily immigrant areas of Paris such as the Goutte d'Or (Pattaroni et al, 2012; Clerval, 2013), which adjoins solidly immigrant suburbs. Clerval (2013) notes that two intertwined barriers to gentrification presented themselves in eastern arrondissements – a conspicuous concentration of social housing and a strong presence of immigrants (mostly African and North African), thereby linking a discredited and outdated built environment with a population held in suspicion, and representing the tip of much larger immigrant/social housing enclaves to the north and east of the city. For her, immigrants are the new working class in the city, subsuming the once much larger and decidedly native-born cluster in the east of Paris, *une classe ouvrière et populaire*, which had endured Hausmann's violent 19th-century displacements but could not survive the massive spatial dislocations in post-war France. The sheer domination of immigrants in these areas puts off gentrification, both symbolically in public spaces and materially in terms of the density of social housing and absentee landlords. Pattaroni et al (2012: 1236) concurred, proposing that 'even left-wing liberal gentrifiers – unable to anchor a satisfactory mode of living – are also leaving the Goutte d'Or', which links to the broader literature on barriers to gentrification that include a poor built environment, lack of amenities, unconventional public behaviour and a politics of resistance abetted by the state (Ley and Dobson, 2008; DeVerteuil, 2012). This can be extended to places such as Pico-Union to the immediate west of Downtown Los Angeles, where a solid wall of working poor immigrants from Mexico and Central America present a daunting barrier to even the hardest of pioneer gentrifiers (DeVerteuil 2011, 2015; for Toronto see Walks and August, 2008, on how entrenched and stable immigrant communities, based in secure tenancy and deep-seated ties, hold back the tide of gentrification).

The Global South also has its fair share of heavily immigrant areas that thwart incipient gentrification. Here I can point to Johannesburg, where once White-only areas near the CBD, such as Hillbrow, have been sequentially disinvested and resettled by African immigrants in large numbers. What little gentrification there is in central Johannesburg has left this area untouched (Rogerson and Rogerson, 2014). In a similar example in Buenos Aires, where gentrification has taken hold to the south of the CBD (San Telmo, Boca), the heavily immigrant areas (e.g. Paraguayan, Bolivian) to the west, such as Once, have seen little in the way of upgrading (Herzer et al, 2015). Finally, Little India in Singapore has also seen little gentrification, its internal coherency protected by a high degree of ethnic concentration and solidarity (Chang, 2016).

25.2.2 Category 2: Immigrants Live Side by Side with Gentrification – Bubble Model

This bubble model was first proposed by May (1996) in Stoke Newington in north-east London, who found the routine of gentrified life was strictly demarcated, surrounded by immigrants but rarely encountering them in meaningful ways. In this account, social life was 'tectonic' (Butler, 2003), in that gentrifiers and immigrants lived spatially proximate yet socially separate existences. In his study of gentrification of Islington in London, Butler (2003: 2469) found newer gentrifiers were 'unwilling to invest social capital in the area and that their relationships are almost entirely with "people like us"', and this despite the fact that gentrifiers find many immigrant neighbourhoods initially interesting for their diversity. In effect, there is little actual mixing and social institutions remain segregated, especially education (see Clerval, 2013; Butler, 2003; Freeman, 2006).

Clerval (2013) describes a similarly tectonic relationship in the more mixed immigrant quarters of Paris, where gentrifiers would feel more comfortable in the social mix while studiously avoiding sending their children to local schools (see also Clerval and Fleury, 2009). This state of affairs should not be surprising, given that gentrification is late in coming to Paris, thereby allowing gentrifiers to rub shoulders with longstanding immigrant communities, especially in eastern arrondissements such as the 10th. Another example may be given in central Madrid (Sequera and Janoschka, 2015), where non-European immigrants are a strong presence but not in sufficient numbers to have deterred an equally strong presence of gentrifiers, co-existing for the time being in the same 'exotic' space but worlds apart socially. Across the Atlantic, the Mission District in San Francisco was an example of scrupulous yet precarious co-existence between long-established Latino immigrants and newer White gentrifiers (Lees et al, 2008). When Castells (1983) used the Mission as an example of immigrant-based neighbourhood politics making demands on the city, the balance was massively in favour of Latinos; by 2000 this had begun to shift the other way as the dot.com boom promoted aggressive gentrification, a trend that has only accelerated by the 2010s (Pogash, 2015). In the Global South, the example of Istanbul is instructive: formerly stigmatized migrant areas used by the state to dump unwanted populations have produced an artificial rent gap that many are now keen to exploit in the name of profits, 'edginess' and 'creativity' (Sakizlioglu and Uitermark, 2014).

25.2.3 Category 3: Immigrants Displaced by Gentrification

In this category, immigrants are increasingly displaced by gentrifiers, the seeds of which are sown in the 'bubble' model by pioneer gentrifiers. This displacement can be physical through evictions, but also symbolic through the erosion of immigrant culture and commerce. This has been documented again in Paris (Clerval, 2013), but also in New York, where Vicino et al (2011: 399) note the almost complete absence of immigrant neighborhoods in Manhattan – only Washington Heights and Chinatown could still be defined as urban immigrant neighborhoods in the 2000s. Similarly, immigrant San Francisco clings on to only the Mission District and Chinatown, both of which are currently experiencing displacement pressures. Vicino et al (2011) demarcated these immigrant neighborhoods as Census tracts having a location quotient of 1.25 or greater in terms of the percent foreign-born population when compared to the overall metropolitan area.

This category suggests that the idea that immigrant hubs may well stimulate

gentrification, in terms of being treated more as exotically 'ethnic' rather than subordinatedly racialized spaces, and thus enticing to monied outsiders. Inner-city Chinatowns in a North American context present a particularly compelling example. Long ignored as self-sustaining communities and born of imposed segregation and ghettoization, Chinatowns are now targeted for displacement and whose exotic ethnic makeup is used as a packaging for gentrification itself. Chinese make up less than half the population of gentrified Chinatowns in Boston, New York and Philadelphia, and the proportion has decreased since 1990 – proof of displacing gentrification as the White population gains hold, while much of the Chinese immigrant population now move directly to suburban Chinatowns – an issue taken up in the next category (Li et al, 2013). The same fate has befallen certain Latino barrios in places such as Chicago and San Francisco (Lees et al, 2008). Betancur (2002) outlines the erosion of community fabric in Latino immigrant neighborhoods in Chicago under the full weight of (incoming White) gentrification. Toronto's Little Portugal presents a similar case of gentrification once rebuffed by strong community ties but now increasingly dissipating (Murdie and Teixeira, 2011), and a similar situation occurs in Greenpoint (Brooklyn), where the more recent Polish immigrant areas are slowly being eroded by an 'ongoing and protracted transformation of lived space in the homes, communities, and neighborhoods being gentrified' (Stabrowsky, 2014: 796).

In the Global South, examples include the revitalizing Casco Viejo in Panama City (Sigler and Wachsmuth, 2016), where long-time migrant communities have been displaced by transnational gentrifiers abetted by local developers. A similar state of affairs has occurred in Zokak el-Blat in Beirut, where refugees from decades of civil war and foreign occupations have been displaced by new-build gentrification (Krijnen and De Beukelaer, 2015). For all of these examples, the endgame becomes perhaps more clear – exclusionary displacement will lead to entirely gentrified inner cities that push new (and priced out) immigrants directly to suburbia. However, not all metropolitan areas inevitably suffer this sequence – cities such as Montreal and Brussels (Van Criekingen and Decroly, 2003) have seen cases of stalled gentrification that allow immigrants to maintain their central location, at least for the time being.

25.2.4 Category 4: Immigrants Avoid Gentrified Areas A Priori

In these instances, immigrants avoid gentrified inner-city areas altogether, due to the latter's pervasively gentrified nature, enabling an enforced (or incumbent) predilection for suburban living. The example of Vancouver is instructive (Ley, 2010), where Chinese migrants eschew inner-city Chinatown as well as gentrifying inner Vancouver (with the exception of some new-build high-rise condos and areas of established wealth) to locate in suburban enclaves – what Li (1998) deemed 'ethnoburbs' in the Los Angeles context (see also Reckard and Khouri, 2014). In this case, Ley (2010: 15) explained that

the older model of inner city sites of arrival and residence . . . is being bypassed. Today many immigrants enter and leave a city repeatedly by air, and for some of them proximity to the suburban airport is desirable. But the suburbs have other assets. Downtown and inner-city neighbourhoods in gateway cities have been increasingly claimed as the employment and housing markets of global rangers engaged in private and public corporate activity, so that poorer immigrants are commonly displaced to the housing stock of cheaper suburbs, the new location

of industry, warehousing and routine service activities that have themselves re-located from the expensive post-industrial core.

For Vancouver, this means moving directly to suburban Richmond, especially for affluent Chinese migrants (Ley, 2010), while avoiding the crowded and somewhat decrepit Chinatown, itself a hangover of a ghetto model of immigrant settlement. As Ley (2010: 148) again recounted, 'the marked preference for areas of detached single-family homes left a demand void in the major multi-family neighbourhoods of Vancouver's downtown and inner city. In this area of primarily apartment units, with gentrification as a key process, there was marked under-representation of new ethnic Chinese households . . .'. The same suburban dynamic could be applied to Los Angeles, where the vast majority of Chinese investment and immigration goes directly to the San Gabriel Valley – even as far back as 1992, when this area had 55% of all Chinese businesses in Los Angeles, compared to just 6% in the traditional, inner-city Chinatown (Light, 2002: 221).

Similar patterns of immigrant evacuation from the city are observable in places such as Sydney (Forrest and Dunn, 2007) and Toronto (Harris, 2014). Using data from the most populous metropolitan areas in Canada (Montreal, Toronto and Vancouver) between 1971 and 2001, Walks and Maaranen (2008) found increased gentrification led to decreased ethnic diversity and immigrant deconcentration. In Toronto, the vast majority of new incoming immigrants now move directly to the suburbs, especially the inner-ring ones built in the 1950s and 1960s and which constitute the main crucible of poverty in the metropolitan area (Harris, 2014). In Washington DC, virtually all immigrants avoid the inner city, the preserve of the long-established African-American community but also the core of White-influx gentrification where 67% of all urban tracts were considered gentrified in 2000 (Vicino et al, 2011).

25.2.5 Category 5: Immigrants as Gentrifiers

But what happens when immigrants are themselves the gentrifiers, re-investing in inner-city areas rather than the suburbs? The most obvious case is immigrant-gentrifiers grafting onto existing immigrant enclaves, usually constituting the original point of entry. So rather than the self-segregated inner-city enclave being gentrified by outsiders, as in the case of American Chinatowns, the enclave is upgraded by incoming (or even returning) co-ethnics, moving beyond the 'immigrant growth machine' model in which the enclave forms the basis for the ethnic economy (Lin, 1998; Light, 2002) and ethnic political platforms that make resource demands on the local state (Castells, 1983) to a full-blown process of re-investment, displacement and class polarization.

What is particularly interesting about this final category is that it seems to occur in cities with less obvious centrality, greater immigrant focus, and a shorter history of overspill (rather than amenity-driven) gentrification. Cities such as the American Sunbelt settlements of Los Angeles and Miami can be viewed as illustrative of this category. In these distinctly 20th-century cities, weak centrality mixed with advanced polycentrism and longstanding suburban investment have led to weak gentrification patterns overall, structured more by proximity to natural amenities (especially coastal areas) than to a central business district, at least until recently. As such, places such as Miami and Los Angeles challenge the model of the spillover and strongly centralized, dominant-population

characteristics of gentrification in New York and London. Locations in this new category also directly challenge Clerval's (2013) concept of gentrifiers as not only a different class but also a different race or ethnicity to the non-gentrifiers. While examples – Little Havana in Miami, and Koreatown in Los Angeles – can be seen as relatively rare, built up entirely through co-ethnic investment rather than mainstream sources (Keil, 1998; Light, 2002), they epitomize both the parochial, place-bound nature of gentrification and the cosmopolitan, place-spanning nature of immigration.

This participant, enclave model is intergenerational and transnational (see Feldman and Jolivet, 2014), moving beyond just incumbent stabilization of neglected ethnic areas, such as the 'Russification' of Brighton Beach (Brown and Wyly, 2000) or the 'Polonization' of Greenpoint, both in Brooklyn (Stabrowski, 2014) that may lay foundations for subsequent gentrification by that very group. For instance, Little Havana is being gentrified by returning Cuban immigrants who originally came to Miami in the 1950s and 1960s and their offspring, rather than through direct overseas investment from Cuba itself. As such, Little Havana experiences renewed investment that has little to do with incoming Whites (Feldman and Jolivet, 2014). Like Miami, the lack of obvious centrality to structure gentrification in Los Angeles means that it deviates from the Anglo-American model while advancing an alternatively polycentric one (DeVerteuil, 2011, 2012, 2015). And just as Los Angeles is an outlier to the usual model of gentrification, so too is Koreatown an emblematic and highly illustrative case of enclave-style gentrification, but not necessarily as a comparative yardstick, thus avoiding a new list of 'usual suspects'.

25.3 KOREATOWN CASE STUDY

Koreatown is a densely populated inner-city area to the west of Downtown Los Angeles. The area comprises over 150,000 people, of which approximately one-third are Korean set within a Latino majority population (US Census, 2010). Given this mix, Koreatown is held up to be an 'emblematic transnational space' (Lin, 1998: 313), yet its gentrification process has been decidedly localized, with first-generation immigrants comprising not only the gentrifiers but also residential and commercial investors. While the Korean population has never comprised the majority of Koreatown, their totals have grown gradually over time – in 1990, the Korean population was 31,700, and by 2010 it had grown to 41,426. And while commercial gentrification predated residential gentrification (Keil, 1998), recent new-builds along Wilshire Boulevard, which bisects Koreatown on its way to the wealthy Westside of Los Angeles, are harbingers of upgrading, displacement and social polarization.

In 2013 and 2014, and with the help of two Korean-speaking research assistants, I collected and analyzed 25 interviews with Korean immigrant gentrifiers in new-build condos in Koreatown, alongside 10 'key informant' interviews with developers, architects and community spokespersons (DeVerteuil et al, forthcoming). Questions focused on the following elements: residential history spanning both South Korea and Los Angeles; current living quarters; reasons for living in Koreatown; everyday spaces of encounter with others in Koreatown; and evidence of transnational movements back to South Korea. All those interviewed considered themselves both as immigrants and gentrifiers, enabling a perspective on how gentrification and immigration related to each other *through* and *in* the spaces of Koreatown. To bolster this qualitative approach, I also used real estate

data (Data Quick, 2013) for the 2003–2013 period, which indicated that Koreatown as a whole saw median price increases of 25%, which is in between the City of Los Angeles (37%) and Los Angeles County (18%) increases, save for 90010 zip code which strictly follows Wilshire Boulevard, whose increase of 55% sets it apart. Not surprisingly, this was the only zip code with a Korean majority in Los Angeles, as well as the only one with significant new-build gentrification.

From the 35 interviews, the lineaments of an immigrant enclave model of gentrification in Koreatown emerged. The first of five elements of this model was the gentrification of the enclave that had been attracting immigrants and entrepreneurs since the 1980s. As one first-generation Korean immigrant-gentrifier noted,

Koreans in Koreatown are reinvesting in Koreatown. So, Koreatown will only be more gentrified. . . Today's Koreatown is located in a central part of LA and it was established through the Koreans' diligence.

He went on to say that Koreatown is,

very convenient for Koreans. I don't need to worry about speaking English. I don't feel lonely because I could easily meet other Koreans and talk to them. Moreover, I can access Korean food easily here. When I bought the condo, I was mostly motivated by those things.

As a second element, this enclave gentrification leans towards a new-build Asian model (Lees et al, 2016) but without the heavy-handed state intervention found in South Korea. Seoul is one of the world's densest and most expensive cities, and transnational Koreans touching down in Los Angeles are interesting in that they know little about the Anglo-American model of gentrification, which sets them apart from overseas Jews gentrifying areas in Tel Aviv (Gonen, 2015) or even diasporic Lebanese in Beirut (Krijnen and De Beukelaer, 2015) who have learned about gentrification while living in places such as New York and Paris. Rather, the process takes cues from Korean-style gentrification, which is overwhelmingly new-build, high-rise and planned, urban renewal as gentrification rather than gradual upgrading:

In comparison with Western cities, gentrification seems to have taken a somewhat different path in South Korea, which has seen real estate development being a central force in urban economic expansion over the last 30 years . . . I argue that these urban renewal projects, are in fact, a form of urban gentrification because they often involve the displacement of poor residents from their city neighbourhoods, for those tenants are unable to pay the increased rents or afford the pricey new housing (Ha, 2015: 165; see also Shin, 2008, 2009).

In this respect, gentrification goes hand in hand with state-led densification. Yet the role of the state in Koreatown is nowhere as overwhelming, not unsurprising given the relatively hands-off nature of neoliberal urban policy in Los Angeles. If anything, Koreatown has been ignored by the local government, whether during and in the immediate aftermath of the 1992 unrest that caused extensive damage, to the slowness in providing green space and effective policing. It is a different kind of state, in the words of a planner:

Pushing out original residents by gentrification might be possible in Korea but it is impossible in America. America is a society where people respect each other. If we go to city hall, we can see

the development plan of the city over the span of 50 years. America's development clock moves slower than South Korea's. I acknowledge the changes but all changes by gentrification come to us slowly and not quickly.

Just the same, the Community Redevelopment Agency (CRA) and the Metropolitan Transportation Authority (MTA) both indirectly stimulated upgrading by pushing higher-density projects along Wilshire Boulevard, many of which have become beach-heads for gentrification. Ultimately however, it is the first-generation Koreans who arrived in LA in the 1980s that provide the impetus for gentrification. The main source of financing for the new-build gentrification has been largely Korean-American, rather than transnational capital emanating from Seoul.

Allied to this homegrown capital, a third key element to Koreatown gentrification has been the role of sharp crises, rather than the slow and gradual emergence of disinvestment and rent gaps. As a key informant noted,

So even after the 1992 riot, a lot of people are wow, this community has been devastated, this community has been the end victim of something that maybe is a misunderstanding or something but anyways, the whole anger of the Latino community, from the black community was lashed out at Koreans; we just became the victims. But we're resilient people so we were able to build back,

Interviewer: So do you feel that the area has changed. I know it's been 20 years since the riots, but particularly in the past 10 years based on your own knowledge if there is change?

Yes. um. Initially it was Korean business owners that who wanted to invest back.

Interviewer: What do you mean Korean business owners? Like from Korea or from here?

No. no. no. Korean American. Korean American. The ones who lost their livelihoods. But they worked hard to rebuild, so, obviously it has to be rebuilt. Some were covered by the insurance, but you know insurance system stopped.

The fourth key element was the community rebuilding after 1992 that sowed the seeds for current gentrification, with first-generation empty-nester immigrants returning to Koreatown by the early 2010s. As one elderly gentrifier made clear,

Many Koreans live here but many immigrants who are just starting off also live in Koreatown. Many Koreans live here until before their children are grown up. If their children grow up, they move out of Koreatown for their children's education and they return after they become older. This became a pattern. There are many ethnicities here and due to this Koreans think it has become a bad educational environment for their children. I've heard that many Korean parents don't want to send their children to school here where their children have to study with bad students in Koreatown.

Another elderly gentrifier put it similarly:

First, Koreans left LA because it was dirty and dangerous. Because at the time Blacks and Hispanics made up half of the population. Koreans made up 20%. The Koreans who lived here were those Koreans who lived in rented apartments paying low rent. But now, they know that Koreatown has turned into a convenient place to live. As the business district grows and it has become cleaner, the people who lived in the suburbs, the old-timers, because of homesickness, they moved here. So older people who lived in single family homes in the suburbs will move to the city and will purchase homes within Koreatown and because there is a demand, they start building upscale condominiums. The reason they are building upscale condominiums is because older people want to live comfortably and want to live closer to Koreatown.

This 'residential loop' adds novelty to the usual gentrification model that takes for granted a permanently suburbanized American middle class. It also speaks to the relative lack of a suburban Koreatown in Los Angeles, unlike the Chinese with the San Gabriel Valley that can absorb incumbent (and transnational) re-investment. Finally, this speaks to a fifth element – that Koreatown has become cool, like other ethnic areas, but not yet attractive to incoming White gentrifiers, demonstrating that Koreatown has gone from dangerous to hip, in the words of this middle-aged gentrifier:

But from what everyone told me and what I remember, Koreatown was like . . . it was considered a bad place to be. When I would meet people and they'd ask, 'Where do you live,' And I respond by saying, 'Koreatown,' They'd always respond by saying, 'Isn't that dangerous?' So I heard a lot of that but now it's different. Uhm, a lot of my friends or co-workers think Koreatown is really hip. So it's like changing where it's more of a hip place to be. People also think that rents aren't as cheap. So before, people would come to K-town for cheap rent. No longer. . .

But what of the experiences of the immigrant gentrifiers themselves, within this new enclave model? A key component seems to be the rejection of suburban living for the convenience and diversity of Koreatown. In their words:

I am getting older and consider the conveniences as being most important for my life and Koreatown provides just that. My children are grown up and I don't need to worry about their education. Koreatown doesn't have good education system. My children live not too far from my current house. Without driving, I can access all Korean-related culture and entertainment here. Moreover, in my house I can watch all Korean TV programs without needing to buy any satellite dishes. I even don't need to pay extra fees to watch those channels in my house.

The seeking of diversity has led to a certain hybridity, a combination of Korean and American culture:

There are many differences between Koreatown and my hometown such as culture, food, language, people, the way of thought and so on. Koreatown is not exactly 'Korea' or 'America' per se.

The experiences of immigrant-gentrifiers in Koreatown are therefore rooted in Los Angeles, and not necessarily transnational – as with Miami Cubans, there was little back-and-forth among actual gentrifiers, with fewer than 20% of the sample making even an annual trip back to Korea. The preference for ethnic diversity also resonated across the sample, and particular emphasis was placed on the fact that Koreatown was not mono-ethnic like Chinatown, even though ironically all the new-build condo towers were over 90% Korean:

Various ethnicities lead to improving a city's value. Koreatown mustn't develop as Chinatown did. Other ethnicities except Chinese find it difficult to live in Chinatown. Diversity brings improvement to many things;

I think that diversity is a positive thing for Koreatown. This is not Korea. If they want to stubbornly maintain that the sole ethnicity of the town is Korean and don't like living with others in Koreatown, then they have to go back to Korea.

The desire for diversity clashed with the fear that gentrification was already causing displacement, an uncomfortable notion at it implies that one immigrant population is displacing another (Sims, 2016), in this case Latinos:

I agree that gentrification is pushing out original residents. There were so many Latinos before around my current living area. However, I don't see Latinos as much now as I did before;

The undocumented population is gonna suffer the most. If I provide low-income housing I have to have documented citizens that have. . . you know, tax returns and they document the fact that they are low-wage earners and so. . . if. . . I go in and I'm displacing 37 families. . . what if 10 of them are undocumented. . . and they can't come back. . . you know? That's the biggest concern. . . the undocumented population who do need the low income housing. . . what happens to them?

25.4 CONCLUSIONS

Shin et al (2016: 456) noted that 'the gentrification literature has been overly occupied with the identification of particular forms of gentrification without paying adequate attention to how gentrification interacts with other urban processes'. In this chapter, I have connected gentrification with immigration, revealing a complex series of well-established and emerging relationships. The five-fold typology holds value as a heuristic tool, building on stage models of gentrification but also suggesting two outlier trajectories. Following on, the Koreatown case study stretched models of gentrification away from the traditional cohort of young professional adults so thoroughly studied in the 1980s and 1990s to include, most prominently, immigrants, but also: those over 50 years of age; empty nesters; and those re-investing in new-build condos in their own immigrant enclave. The gentrification of the Koreatown enclave showed components of both the imported Asian model (Shin et al, 2016) and North American models, a hybrid of new-build and segregation/displacement set within a largely hands-off local state. This shows at least partially the possibility of a new Asian model moving to the Global North, especially in more receptive cities such as Los Angeles where gentrification remains incipient.

While the last category of the typology has been fleshed out in some detail, the first four categories are rarely applied to cities of the Global South which are increasingly experiencing dimensions of gentrification that include class polarization, re-investment and displacement. Such a focus, using a comparative and decolonizing perspective, would surely move us beyond Global North models while also valorizing alternative understandings of incipient gentrification. Finally, and returning to notions of gentrification and 'race', in the Global North immigrants are usually a different 'race' than the mainstream population or that of gentrifiers – and so immigration needs to be brought into the conversation through place-spanning practices and globalization from below. Immigration adds to the complexity of race and gentrification, as some immigrants are racialized while other are not, translating into different positions vis-à-vis gentrification – stubborn in resistance, subordinate and displaced, or even in control. Indeed, the first four categories featured somewhat disparaged immigrants – stigmatized enough to produce a barrier to gentrification, or expendable enough to be displaced – while the fifth category places certain immigrants as dominant.

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